前期日程

令和7年度入学試験問題

外国語

(英語コミュニケーションⅠ・Ⅱ・Ⅲ　論理・表現Ⅰ・Ⅱ・Ⅲ)

注意事項

1. 試験開始の合図があるまで，この問題冊子の中を見てはいけません。
2. 解答はすべて別紙解答用紙に記入しなさい。
3. 解答用紙は5枚です。
4. 各解答用紙には受験番号を記入する欄がそれぞれ2箇所あります。すべて記入しなさい。
5. 試験終了後，問題冊子は持ち帰りなさい。

I 次の英文を読み，以下の問に特に指示のない限り日本語で答えよ。

Tea has been many things in its time — a global product, a comforting beverage, and even, in the eyes of some Bostonians about 250 years ago, a symbol of oppressive (i) politics. But one role you might not have attributed to tea is that of a life-saving health intervention.

In her recent paper, economist Francisca Antman makes a convincing case that the explosion of tea as an everyman's drink in late 1700s England saved many lives. This would not have been because of any *antioxidants or other substances inherent (ii) to the tea leaf. Instead, the simple practice of boiling water for tea, in an era before people understood that illness could be caused by water-borne bacteria, may have been enough to keep many from an early grave (1).

English *demographics from this era have long contained a puzzle for historians. Between 1761 and 1834, the annual death rate declined substantially, from 28 to 25 per 1,000 people. But at the same time, wages do not seem to have risen much and standards of living arguably did not increase. In fact, with the rise of the industrial revolution, more and more people were crowding into towns whose *sanitation left much to be desired.

The idea that tea might be the missing link (2) here, thanks to the need to boil water for a proper tea, had been floated by historians in the past. Boiling water kills bacteria that cause *diarrheal diseases like *dysentery. "With people coming into cities to work, you would expect, given the level of sanitation they have, that the big killer is water," says Antman. But it remained a somewhat fuzzy (iii) idea, interesting in theory but difficult to prove.

Antman developed a way to test it, using detailed geographical information about more than 400 *parishes across England. There is a simple assumption at the heart of her study: more water sources in an area likely means cleaner water. If one source was contaminated (iv), the inhabitants of a parish could go to another. What's more, if people were closer to the sources of rivers — something Antman

infers from parishes' *elevation — that water was likely safer than in parishes further downstream. By assigning parishes an inferred level of water quality, Antman could see whether areas with worse water quality saw a bigger decline in death rates than those with good water.

In terms of testing this hypothesis, the key date is 1785, when tea suddenly became affordable for the vast majority of British people. There were many things already to recommend tea as a drink of the masses: you could make a satisfying brew with just a small amount of leaves, the leaves could be reused for multiple pots, and tea was potentially cheaper than beer, which was rendered (v) expensive both by the complex process required to make it and by a tax on *malt.

But when 1784's *Tea Act went into effect, the tax on tea went from 119% to just 12.5% and tea consumption exploded. By the end of the 18th century, even very poor peasants were having tea twice a day, tea historian Alan Macfarlane writes. To see if this change correlated with decreased death rates, Antman compared them before and after the turning-point moment (3). For this she drew on the remarkable work of British demographers who in the mid-20th century collected parish records from all over England spanning 1541 to 1871, including deaths.

As expected, Antman found that death rates declined in both parishes with good water and those with bad — but there was a significant difference in the size of the decline. Parishes with (A) saw death rates drop 18% more than those with (B). What's more, she looked to see whether deaths in London from waterborne diseases like dysentery, and deaths from airborne bacteria like *tuberculosis, were linked to levels of tea imports. Indeed, dysentery deaths declined when tea imports went up, while tuberculosis deaths remained about the time.

She also checked to see whether deaths in children — not known, in this age or any other, for being major consumers of tea — changed in London with tea

imports, and found that there did not seem to be a decline in deaths of those ages two to five. Interestingly, there was a slight decline in infant deaths, perhaps reflecting the fact that if tea-drinking parents had less diarrheal disease, their very young children might have been protected a bit as well — though Antman points out there is no way to know for sure.

For Antman, who primarily works on issues related to developing nations, this natural experiment in England all those years ago reflects (4) a fundamental truth: sometimes people's existing behaviors can make more of a difference to their health than a direct intervention might. Building more toilets, developing better *plumbing and *sewage systems, and teaching people to keep drinking water and wastewater thoroughly separate all might have extended people's lives, had such interventions been widely understood and available. But with relatively little change to their habits, merely an increase in a behavior they already enjoyed, people seem to have protected themselves. All part of the pleasure of a simple cup of tea.

出典：Greenwood, V. (2023, December 16). *How Britain's taste for tea may have been a life saver.* BBC. (一部改変)

*注 antioxidant 酸化防止剤 demographics 人口統計
sanitation 公衆衛生 diarrheal 下痢の dysentery 赤痢
parish 教(会)区 elevation 標高 malt 麦芽
Tea Act 茶条例 tuberculosis 結核 plumbing 配管
sewage 下水

問 1　下線部(i)～(v)の英単語の意味を，次の定義の中からそれぞれ一つ選び，(a)～(g)のアルファベットで答えよ。ただし，どこにも当てはまらない選択肢が二つある。

(a) behaving in a kind and pleasant way because you like somebody or want to help them

(b) confused and not expressed clearly

(c) that is a basic or permanent part of somebody/something and that cannot be removed

(d) to cause somebody/something to be in a particular state or condition

(e) to make a substance or place dirty or no longer pure by adding a substance that is dangerous or carries disease

(f) to make something pure by removing substances that are dirty, harmful or not wanted

(g) treating people in a cruel and unfair way and not giving them the same freedom, rights, etc. as other people

問 2　下線部(1)はどういう意味か，本文に即して簡潔に説明せよ。

問 3　下線部(2)の the missing link とは何と何をつなぐものか，本文に即して簡潔に説明せよ。

問 4　下線部(3)の the turning-point moment に何が起こったのか，本文に即して簡潔に説明せよ。

問 5　空欄(A)と(B)に当てはまる語句について，本文中で使われている英単語をそれぞれ2語ずつ用いて答えよ。

問 6　下線部(4)はどういうことか，本文に即して具体例も挙げつつ説明せよ。

II 次の英文を読み，以下の問に特に指示のない限り日本語で答えよ。

For millennia people with hearing impairments encountered marginalization because it was believed that language could only be learned by hearing the spoken word. Ancient Greek philosopher Aristotle, for example, asserted that "Men that are deaf are in all cases also dumb." Under Roman law people who were born deaf were denied the right to sign a will as they were "assumed to understand nothing; because it is not possible that they have been able to learn to read or write."

Pushback against (1) this prejudice began in the Renaissance. The first person credited with the creation of a formal sign language for the hearing impaired was (2) Pedro Ponce de León, a 16th-century Spanish *Benedictine monk. His idea to use sign language was not a completely new idea. Native Americans used hand gestures to communicate with other tribes and to facilitate trade with Europeans. Benedictine monks had used them to convey messages during their daily periods of silence. Inspired by the latter practice, Ponce de León adapted the gestures used in his *monastery to create a method for teaching the deaf to communicate, laying the foundation for the way systems are now used all over the world.

Building on Ponce de León's work, another Spanish priest and linguist, (3) Juan Pablo Bonet, continued exploring new communication methods. Bonet criticized some of the brutal methods that had been used to get deaf people to speak: "Sometimes they are put into barrels in which the voice booms and echoes. (4) These measures are by no means effective." In 1620 he published the first surviving work on the education of people with a hearing disability. Bonet proposed that deaf people learn to pronounce words and progressively construct meaningful phrases. The first step in this process was what he called the *demonstrative alphabet, a manual system in which the right hand made shapes to represent each letter. This alphabet, very similar to the modern sign language alphabet, was based on the Aretina *score, a system of musical symbols created

by Guido Aretinus, an Italian monk in the Middle Ages, to help singers sight-read music. The deaf person would learn to associate each letter of the alphabet with a spoken sound. Bonet's approach combined oralism — using sounds to communicate — with sign language. The system had its challenges, especially when learning the words for abstract terms, or untouchable forms such as *conjunctions like "for," "nor," or "yet."

In 1755 the French Catholic priest Charles-Michel de l'Épée established a more comprehensive method for educating the deaf, which ended in the founding of the first public school for deaf children, the National Institute for Deaf-Mutes in Paris. Students came to the institute from all over France, bringing signs they had used to communicate with at home. Épée adapted these signs and added his own manual alphabet, creating a signing dictionary. Insistent that sign language needed to be a complete language, his system was complex enough to express prepositions, conjunctions, and other grammatical elements. Épée is known as the father of the deaf for his work and his establishment of 21 schools.

Épée's *standardized sign language quickly spread across Europe and to the United States. In 1814 Thomas Hopkins Gallaudet, a minister from Connecticut who wanted to teach his nine-year-old, hearing-impaired neighbor to communicate, went to France to train under Épée's *successor, Abbé Sicard. Three years later, Gallaudet established the American School for the Deaf in his hometown of Hartford, Connecticut. Students from across the United States attended, and just as at Épée's school, they brought signs they used to communicate with at home. American Sign Language became a combination of these signs and those from French Sign Language.

Thanks to the development of formal sign languages, people with hearing impairment can access spoken language in all its variety. The world's many modern signing systems have different rules for pronunciation, word order, and grammar. New visual languages can even express regional accents to reflect the complexity and richness of local speech.

出典：Dayas, I. A. (2019, May 29). *How monks helped invent sign language.* National Geographic. (一部改変)

*注　Benedictine　(キリスト教)ベネディクト会派の　monastery　修道院
demonstrative　指示的な　score　楽譜　conjunction　接続詞
standardized　標準化された　successor　後継者

問 1　下線部(1)の this prejudice とは何か，本文に即して説明せよ。

問 2　下線部(2)の Pedro Ponce de León は何を参考にして正式な手話を作ったのか，本文に即して説明せよ。

問 3　下線部(3)の Juan Pablo Bonet による new communication methods とはどのような方法か，またその問題点は何か，本文に即して説明せよ。

問 4　下線部(4)はどういうことか，these measures が示している内容を明確にして説明せよ。

問 5　フランスとアメリカで手話が確立された過程で，両国に共通して見られたことは何か説明せよ。

III Read the following article and answer each question.

In the early 1990s, I worked as a tree planter in northern Canada. This was a common — if extremely hard — summer job for Canadian university students, since it allowed you to make good money while spending a few months outdoors with other young people. I was driven in part by the idealistic view that planting a tree was always going to be better than not planting one.

Looking back on my optimism, I found this wasn't true. Forest and management experts understand that a monoculture of trees — like *saplings of the *black spruce we were planting, about two meters apart in neat rows — has (A) wildfires more likely and much worse when they occur.

At the time, I didn't fully understand how the tree-planting industry worked. All I knew was that we were planting in clear cuts, areas where whole forests had already been harvested by a tree-cutting company. The responsibility for regrowing forests had largely been (i) transferred to the forest management businesses that held the tree-cutting contracts; as part of those contracts, they could do things like cut more trees or receive extra (ii) compensation from their government if they invested in reforestation. So after my school term (B), I moved, along with a few dozen eager summer planters, to a tree planting camp where the forests had been cut down. Our job was to (C) holes and plant black spruce saplings. I carried three bags of them, one on each hip and one in the back. In safety boots, I broke through (iii) shallow *puddles that were covered with ice, walked through mud and crawled over trees. I had tape wrapped around each finger and on both heels to cover up the *blisters. When I asked someone why our saplings were always spaced about two meters apart, the answer came back with a smile: so that the trees would be easy to cut down again.

Through black flies, *mosquitoes, blisters and bears, we worked for pay of roughly 9 to 11 cents per tree. At my peak, I planted a few thousand saplings a

day. After camp costs and taxes were taken away, I might gain $6,000 in a summer. There were rumors about tireless superplanters who could earn up to $10,000 in a couple of exhausting (iv) months. The work was hard, and I even (D) close to quitting on a number of occasions. At those times, I told myself I was not only making money, I was doing something good for the environment.

Much later, I learned that the trees we were planting burn so easily that firefighters call them gas on a stick. In a naturally occurring forest, black spruce is often found in a mix with trees like aspen and poplar, which are full of moisture and provide a natural resistance to fire. However, large areas of forest with only one type of tree, the spruce we were planting, are serious fire hazards (v).

The severe mistake we were making gets to the heart of what people often get wrong about (E) care of the environment: the idea that, no matter careless and greedy we are, we can always repair the harm we have done. Rather than leave a forest untouched, we clear-cut it, then plant a new one. My group of planters thought we were making things better. I spent this summer watching that youthful ideal literally going up in smoke. Now when I think of that summer, I don't think that I was planting trees at all. I was planting thousands of torches a day.

Source. Cameron, C. (2023, September 15). We thought we were saving the planet, but we were planting a time bomb. *The New York Times*. (with some modifications)

*Notes :

sapling : a young tree not over 10 centimeters tall at breast height

black spruce : a small Canadian pine-family tree that never loses its needle-like leaves

puddle : a small pool of water, especially rain, that has collected in one place on the ground

blister : a liquid-filled, elevated part of your skin caused by, for instance, a burn or continuous rubbing

mosquito : a flying insect that bites humans and animals and drinks their blood

Question 1. For each of the underlined words (i) to (v), choose the closest in meaning among the options (a) to (d).

(i) transfer	(a) change	(b) pass	
	(c) retain	(d) stop	
(ii) compensation	(a) appreciation	(b) pay	
	(c) penalty	(d) right	
(iii) shallow	(a) clean	(b) deep	
	(c) dirty	(d) surface	
(iv) exhausting	(a) fruitful	(b) humid	
	(c) refreshing	(d) tiring	
(v) hazard	(a) danger	(b) energy	
	(c) protection	(d) supplier	

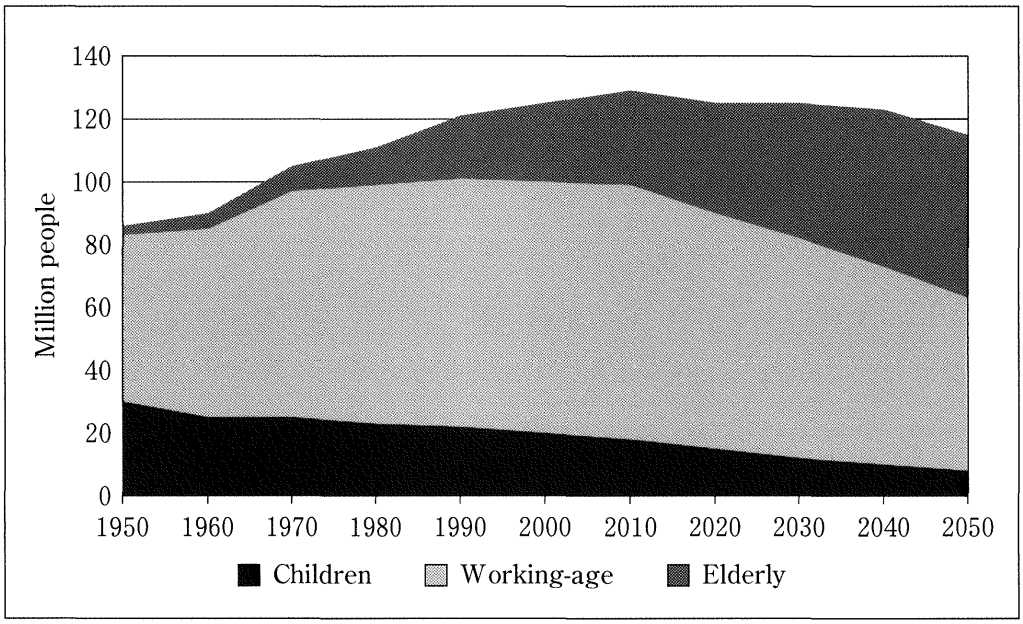
Question 2. Choose the most appropriate verb to fill in the blanks (A) through (E) from the options in the box below and change it to the appropriate form if necessary.

come	dig	end	go	keep	make	take

Question 3. Summarize in your own words the main points of the article in 50 — 70 English words. When you do so, pay attention to (1) why the writer was originally positive about his work, and (2) what the final result was and why?

IV Take a look at Figure 1 below. First, identify possible problems caused by the changes, then discuss potential solutions to these problems. The total number of English words should be approximately 200.

Figure 1. Japanese population and age structure, 1950-2050



Source. OECD (2016). *OECD Territorial reviews: Japan.* OECD Publishing. (p. 31)